

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

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Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Introduction –

- A **collection of several operations** on the database **appears to be a single unit** from the **point of view of the database user**.
- For **example**, a **transfer of funds** from a **checking account** to a **savings account** is a **single operation** from the customer's point of view.
- **But** within the **database system** it **consists of several operations**.
- It is **essential** that **all these operations occur**, or in case of a failure, none occur.
- **Transactions - Collections of operations that form a single logical unit of work.**
- A **database system** must **ensure proper execution of transactions despite failures - either the entire transaction executes, or none of it does.**
- Database system must **manage concurrent execution of transactions** in such a way that it **avoids the inconsistency**.

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Transaction Concept –

- A **transaction** is a **unit of program execution** that **accesses and possibly updates various data items**.
- A **transaction** is **initiated by a user program written in a high-level data-manipulation language**(typically SQL), **or programming language** (for example, C++, or Java).
- The **transaction consists of all operations executed between the begin transaction and end transaction**.
- This **collection of steps** must **appear to the user as a single, indivisible unit**.
- Since a **transaction is indivisible**, it **either executes in its entirety or not at all**.
- Thus, if a **transaction begins to execute but fails** for whatever reason, **any changes to the database** that the transaction may have made **must be undone**.

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ACID Properties –

- To ensure integrity of the data, it is required that the database system maintain the following properties of the transactions:
 - **Atomicity**
 - **Consistency**
 - **Isolation**
 - **Durability**
- These properties are called the **ACID** properties.
- **Atomicity** - Either all operations of the transaction are reflected properly in the database, or none are.
- **Consistency** - Execution of a transaction in isolation (that is, with no other transaction executing concurrently) preserves the consistency of the database.

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ACID Properties –

- **Isolation** - Even though **multiple transactions may execute concurrently**, the **system guarantees that**, for **every pair of transactions T_i and T_j** , it appears to T_i that **either T_j finished execution before T_i started or T_j started execution after T_i finished**. Thus, **each transaction is unaware of other transactions executing concurrently in the system**.
- **Durability** - **After a transaction completes successfully**, the **changes it has made to the database persist, even if there are system failures**.

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Transaction State –

- In the **absence of failures**, all transactions must **complete successfully**.
- A **transaction may not always complete its execution successfully**. Such a transaction is termed as **aborted**.
- To **ensure the atomicity property**, an **aborted transaction** must have **no effect on the state of the database**.
- **Any changes** that the **aborted transaction** made to the database must be **undone**.
- Once the **changes caused by an aborted transaction** have been undone, we say that the **transaction** has been **rolled back**.
- It is part of the **responsibility of the recovery scheme** to manage **transaction aborts**. This is done typically by **maintaining a log**.

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Transaction State –

- A **transaction** that **completes its execution successfully** is said to be **committed**.
- A **committed transaction** that has **performed updates transforms the database into a new consistent state**, which must **persist even if** there is a **system failure**.
- Once a **transaction has committed**, we **cannot undo its effects** by aborting it.
- The **only way to undo the effects** of a committed transaction is to **execute a compensating transaction**.
- For instance, if a transaction added \$20 to an account, the compensating transaction would subtract \$20 from the account.

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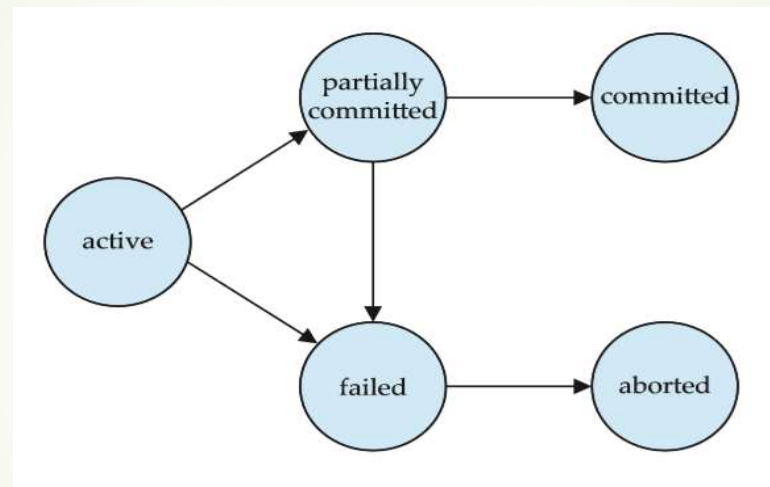
Simple Transaction Model –

- For a successful completion of transaction, a transaction must be in one of the following states:
- **Active** - the initial state; the transaction stays in this state while it is executing
- **Partially committed** - after the final statement has been executed
- **Failed** - after the discovery that normal execution can no longer proceed
- **Aborted** - after the transaction has been rolled back and the database has been restored to its state prior to the start of the transaction
- **Two options after** it has been **aborted**:
 - **Restart the transaction** - only if no internal logical error
 - **Kill the transaction**
- **Committed** - after successful completion

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Simple Transaction Model –

- The **state diagram** corresponding to a transaction appears in Figure –



- We say that a **transaction has committed only if** it has **entered the committed state**.
- Similarly, we say that a **transaction has aborted only if** it has **entered the aborted state**.
- A **transaction** is said to have **terminated if** has **either committed or aborted**.

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Simple Transaction Model –

- Consider the transaction concept in a simple bank application consisting of several accounts and a set of transactions that access and update those accounts.
- **Transactions access data using two operations:**
 - **read(X)**, which **transfers the data item X from the database to a variable**, also called X, in a buffer in main memory belonging to the transaction that executed the read operation.
 - **write(X)**, which **transfers the value in the variable X in the main-memory buffer of the transaction** that executed the write **to the data item X in the database**.

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Simple Transaction Model –

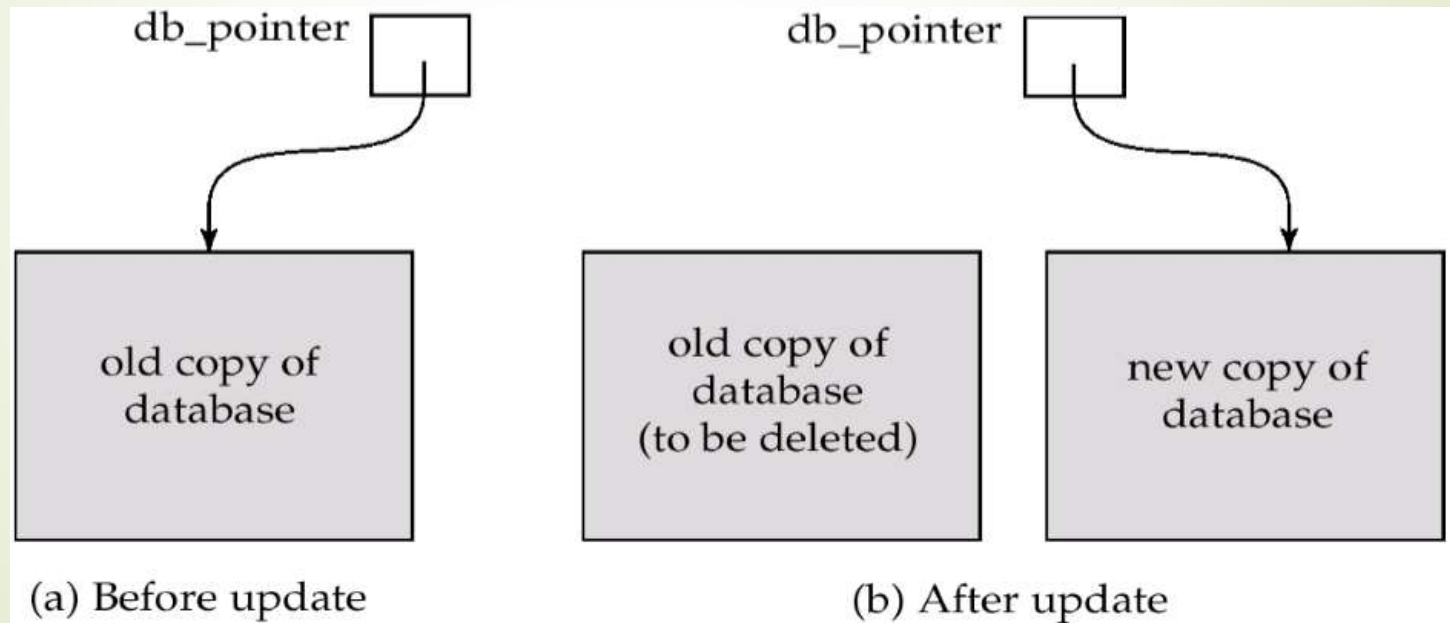
- Let T_i be a transaction that transfers \$50 from account A to account B. This transaction can be defined as:

```
 $T_i$ : read(A);  
      A := A - 50;  
      write(A);  
      read(B);  
      B := B + 50;  
      write(B).
```

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Implementation of Atomicity and Durability –

- The **recovery-management component of a database** system implements the support for atomicity and durability.
- **Shadow Database Scheme -**



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Implementation of Atomicity and Durability –

➤ Shadow Database Scheme –

- Assume that **only one transaction is active** at a time.
- A pointer called **db_pointer** always **points to the current consistent copy of the database**.
- All **updates are made** on a **shadow copy** of the database.
- A **db_pointer** is made to **point to the updated shadow copy only after the transaction reaches partial commit** and **all updated pages have been flushed to disk**.
- **In case transaction fails, old consistent copy pointed by db_pointer can be used, and the shadow copy can be deleted.**

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Concurrent Executions –

- **Multiple transactions** are allowed to **run simultaneously** in the system.
- **Advantages –**
 - **Increased processor and disk utilization –**
 - Leading to **better transaction throughput** i.e. **one transaction** can be **using the CPU** while **another** is reading from or writing to the disk.
 - **Reduced average response time for transactions –**
 - **Short transactions** need not wait behind long ones
- **Concurrency control schemes –**
 - **Mechanisms to achieve isolation**, i.e. to **control the interaction among the concurrent transactions** in order to **prevent** them from destroying the **consistency of the database**

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Schedules –

- **Schedules** are the **sequences** that **indicate** the **chronological order** in which **instructions of concurrent transactions are executed**.
- A **schedule** for a set of transactions must **consist of all instructions** of those transactions.
- A **schedule must preserve** the **order** in which the instructions appear in each individual transaction.
- **Schedules in DBMS** are a **series of operations performing one transaction to the other**.
- **R(X)** means **Reading the value: X**; and **W(X)** means **Writing the value: X**.
- **Schedules** in DBMS are of **two types** –
 - **Serial Schedule**
 - **Non-serial Schedule**

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Schedules –

➤ Serial Schedule –

- A **schedule** in which **only one transaction is executed at a time** i.e. one transaction is executed completely before starting another transaction.
- **Serial schedules** are **always serializable** because the **transactions only work one after the other**. For a transaction, there are $n!$ serial schedules possible. (n - no. of transactions).
- Here, we can see that Transaction-2 starts its execution after the completion of Transaction-1.

Transaction – 1	Transaction – 2
R(a)	
W(a)	
R(b)	
W(b)	
	R(b)
	W(b)
	R(a)
	W(a)

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Schedules –

➤ Non-Serial Schedule –

- A **schedule** in which the **transactions are interleaving or interchanging**.
- There are several transactions executing simultaneously as they are being used in performing real-world database operations.
- These transactions may be working on the same piece of data.
- Hence, the serializability of non-serial schedules is a major concern so that our database is consistent before and after the execution of the transactions.

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Schedules –

➤ Non-Serial Schedule –

- We can see that Transaction-2 starts its execution before the completion of Transaction-1, and they are interchangeably working on the same data, i.e., "a" and "b".

Transaction – 1	Transaction – 2
R(a)	
W(a)	
	R(b)
	W(b)
R(b)	
	R(a)
W(b)	
	W(a)

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Schedules –

- **Example** - Let T1 transfer \$50 from A to B, and T2 transfer 10% of the balance from A to B. The following is a **serial schedule** in which **T1 is followed by T2**.

T_1	T_2
read(A) $A := A - 50$ write(A) read(B) $B := B + 50$ write(B)	read(A) $temp := A * 0.1$ $A := A - temp$ write(A) read(B) $B := B + temp$ write(B)

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Schedules –

- **Example** - Let T1 and T2 be the transactions defined previously. The following schedule is **not a serial schedule**, but it is **equivalent to Schedule 1**.

T ₁	T ₂
read(A) $A := A - 50$ write(A)	
	read(A) $temp := A * 0.1$ $A := A - temp$ write(A)
read(B) $B := B + 50$ write(B)	
	read(B) $B := B + temp$ write(B)

- In both Schedule, the sum $A + B$ is preserved.

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Schedules –

- **Example** - The following concurrent **schedule** does not preserve the value of the sum $A + B$.

T_1	T_2
read(A) $A := A - 50$	
	read(A) $temp := A * 0.1$ $A := A - temp$ write(A) read(B)
write(A) read(B) $B := B + 50$ write(B)	
	$B := B + temp$ write(B)

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Serializability –

- **Serializability** is related to schedules and transactions.
- **Schedule** is a **set of transactions**, and a **transaction** is a **set of instructions** used to perform any logical operations in terms of databases.
- When **multiple transactions are running concurrently** then there is a **possibility** that the **database** may be left in an **inconsistent state**.
- **Serializability** help us to **check which schedules are serializable**.
- A **serializable schedule** is the one that always **leaves the database in consistent state**.
- **Serializability** in DBMS **ensures safe parallel execution of transactions** by enforcing rules, preventing unexpected or incorrect results.
- **Each transaction is treated as** if it's the **only one running, maintaining integrity**.
- DBMS employs concurrency control technique to achieve serializability.

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Serializability –

- The **concurrency control technique helps** to ensure that **multiple transactions do not interfere with each other's execution** by controlling their access to shared resources.
- These shared resources can be database tables and records.
- By **maintaining serializability**, the **DBMS ensures** the **correctness and consistency of the database** even under heavy concurrent usage.
- **Serializability –**
 - **Serializability** is a **property of a system** describing how different processes operate on shared data.
 - A **system is serializable** if its **result is the same as** if the **operations** were **executed in some sequential order**. (There is **no overlap in execution**)
 - **DBMS** can be **accomplished by locking data** so that **no other process can access it** while it is being read or written.

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Serializability –

➤ Serializable Schedule –

- A **serializable schedule** is a **sequence of database actions** (read and write operations) that **does not violate the serializability property**.
- It **ensures** that **concurrent transactions produce the same final result as if they were executed one after the other**.
- It also **helps to maintain the data consistency and integrity**.
- It is important because **it maintains the ACID property** of any Database.

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Serializability –

➤ Types of Serializability –

- In DBMS, **serializability** requires that **transactions** appear to happen in a **particular order**, even if they execute **concurrently**.
- **Transactions** that are **not serializable** may **produce incorrect results**.
- There are **different types of serializability** in DBMS with different advantages and disadvantages.
- The **two of the most common types**:
 - **Conflict Serializability**
 - **View Serializability**

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Serializability –

➤ Types of Serializability –

➤ Conflict Serializability –

- Instructions i and j of transactions T_i and T_j respectively, **conflict if and only if** there exists **some item Q accessed by both i and j** , and **at least one of these instructions wrote Q** .
- 1. $i = \text{read}(Q), j = \text{read}(Q)$. i and j don't conflict.
- 2. $i = \text{read}(Q), j = \text{write}(Q)$. They conflict.
- 3. $i = \text{write}(Q), j = \text{read}(Q)$. They conflict
- 4. $i = \text{write}(Q), j = \text{write}(Q)$. They conflict

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Serializability –

➤ Types of Serializability –

➤ Conflict Serializability –

- In this serializability, **conflicting operations on the same data items are executed in an order that preserves database consistency.**
- **Each transaction is assigned a unique number, and the operations within each transaction are executed in order based on that number.**
- It **ensures** that **no two conflicting operations are executed concurrently.**
- For **example**, consider a **database with two tables: Customers & Orders. Each order is associated with one customer even though a single client may place orders.**

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Serializability –

➤ Types of Serializability –

➤ Conflict Serializability –

➤ **Key conditions** for conflict serializability –

- **Both operations belong to different transactions**
- **Both operations are on the same data item**
- **At least one of the two operations is a write operation**

- If two transactions were to execute concurrently, one adding an order for customer A and the other adding an order for customer B, conflict serializability would ensure that the transaction adding the order for customer A would finish before the transaction adding the order for customer B.
- This would prevent any inconsistency in the database, such as an order being associated with the wrong customer.

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Serializability –

➤ Types of Serializability –

➤ Conflict Serializability -

➤ Examples –

- Conflicting operations pair $(R1(A), W2(A))$ because they belong to two different transactions on the same data item A and one of them is a write operation.
- Similarly, $(W1(A), W2(A))$ and $(W1(A), R2(A))$ pairs are also conflicting.
- On the other hand, the $(R1(A), W(B))$ pair is non-conflicting because they operate on different data items.
- Similarly, $(W1(A), W2(B))$ pair is non-conflicting.

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Serializability –

➤ Types of Serializability –

➤ Conflict Serializability -

- If a **schedule S** can be **transformed into** a **schedule S'** by a **series of swaps of non-conflicting instructions**, we say that **S and S'** are **conflict equivalent**.
- We say that a **schedule S** is **conflict serializable** if it is **conflict equivalent to a serial schedule**.

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Serializability –

➤ Types of Serializability –

➤ View Serializability -

- Let S and S' be two schedules with the same set of transactions.
- S and S' are view equivalent if the following three conditions are met:
 1. For each data item Q , if transaction T_i reads the initial value of Q in schedule S , then transaction T_i must, in schedule S' , also read the initial value of Q .
 2. For each data item Q , if transaction T_i executes $\text{read}(Q)$ in schedule S , and that value was produced by transaction T_j (if any), then transaction T_i in schedule S' must also read the value of Q that was produced by transaction T_j .
 3. For each data item Q , the transaction (if any) that performs the final $\text{write}(Q)$ operation in schedule S must perform the final $\text{write}(Q)$ operation in schedule S' .

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Serializability –

➤ Types of Serializability –

➤ View Serializability -

- Two schedules S1 and S2 are said to be view equivalent if they satisfy the following conditions:
- **Initial Read** - An initial read of both schedules must be the same. In schedule S1, if a transaction T1 is reading the data item A, then in S2, transaction T1 should also read A.

T1	T2
Read(A)	Write(A)

Schedule S1

T1	T2
Read(A)	Write(A)

Schedule S2

- Above two schedules are view equivalent because Initial read operation in S1 is done by T1 and in S2 it is also done by T1.

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Serializability –

➤ Types of Serializability –

➤ View Serializability -

- **Updated Read** - In schedule S1, if T_i is reading A which is updated by T_j then in S2 also, T_i should read A which is updated by T_j .

T1	T2	T3
Write(A)	Write(A)	
		Read(A)

Schedule S1

T1	T2	T3
Write(A)	Write(A)	
		<u>Read(A)</u>

Schedule S2

- Above two schedules are not view equal because, in S1, T3 is reading A updated by T2 and in S2, T3 is reading A updated by T1.

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Serializability –

➤ Types of Serializability –

➤ View Serializability -

- **Final Write** - A final write must be the same between both the schedules. In schedule S1, if a transaction T1 updates A at last then in S2, final writes operations should also be done by T1.

T1	T2	T3
Write(A)	Read(A)	
		Write(A)

Schedule S1

T1	T2	T3
Write(A)	Read(A)	
		Write(A)

Schedule S2

- Above two schedules is view equal because Final write operation in S1 is done by T3 and in S2, the final write operation is also done by T3.

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Serializability –

➤ Types of Serializability –

➤ View Serializability -

- View equivalence is based purely on reads and writes alone.
- Conditions 1 and 2 ensure that each transaction reads the same values in both schedules and, therefore, performs the same computation.
- Condition 3, coupled with conditions 1 and 2, ensures that both schedules result in the same final system state.
- A schedule S is view serializable if it is view equivalent to a serial schedule.
- Every conflict serializable schedule is also view serializable.
- Some schedules which are view-serializable but not conflict serializable.

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Serializability –

➤ Types of Serializability –

➤ View Serializability -

- Some transactions perform **write(Q)** operations without having performed a **read(Q)** operation. Writes of this sort are called **blind writes**.

T_3	T_4	T_6
read(Q)	write(Q)	write(Q)
write(Q)		

- **Blind writes** appear in any view-serializable schedule that is **not conflict serializable**.

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Serializability –

➤ Types of Serializability –

➤ View Serializability -

➤ Example – Schedule S

T1	T2	T3
Read(A)	Write(A)	
Write(A)		Write(A)

➤ With 3 transactions, the total number of possible schedule = $3! = 6$

➤ S1 = <T1 T2 T3>

➤ S2 = <T1 T3 T2>

➤ S3 = <T2 T3 T1>

➤ S4 = <T2 T1 T3>

➤ S5 = <T3 T1 T2>

➤ S6 = <T3 T2 T1>

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Serializability –

➤ Types of Serializability –

➤ View Serializability -

➤ Example - Taking first schedule S1:

T1	T2	T3
Read(A) Write(A)	Write(A)	Write(A)

Schedule S1

- Step 1: Initial Read - The initial read operation in S is done by T1 and in S1, it is also done by T1.
- Step 2 : Updated Read - In both schedules S and S1, there is no read except the initial read that's why we don't need to check that condition.
- Step 3 : Final Write - The final write operation in S is done by T3 and in S1, it is also done by T3. So, S and S1 are view Equivalent.

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Serializability –

➤ Types of Serializability –

➤ View Serializability -

➤ Example - The first schedule S1 satisfies all three conditions, so we don't need to check another schedule.

➤ Hence, view equivalent serial schedule is:

T1 → T2 → T3

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Recoverability –

- **Recoverability** is a **property of database** systems that ensures that, **in the event of a failure or error**, the **system can recover the database to a consistent state**.
- **Recoverability guarantees** that **all committed transactions** are **durable** and that **their effects are permanently stored in the database**, while the **effects of uncommitted transactions** are **undone to maintain data consistency**.
- The recoverability property is **enforced through the use of transaction logs**, which **record all changes made to the database during transaction processing**.
- When a **failure occurs**, the **system uses the log to recover the database to a consistent state**, which **involves either undoing the effects of uncommitted transactions or redoing the effects of committed transactions**.
- **Recoverability ensures** that **data is consistent and durable even in the event of failures or errors**.

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Recoverability –

- A transaction may not execute completely due to hardware failure, system crash or software issues. In that case, we have to roll back the failed transaction.
- But some other transactions may also have used values produced by the failed transaction. So we have to roll back those transactions as well.

➤ Recoverable Schedule –

- Schedules in which transactions commit only after all transactions whose changes they read commit are called recoverable schedules.
- If some transaction T_j is reading value updated or written by some other transaction T_i , then the commit of T_j must occur after the commit of T_i .

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Recoverability –

➤ Recoverable Schedule –

➤ Example 1 –

```
S1: R1(x), W1(x), R2(x), R1(y), R2(y),  
    W2(x), W1(y), C1, C2;
```

- Given schedule follows order of $T_i \rightarrow T_j \Rightarrow C1 \rightarrow C2$.
- Transaction T1 is executed before T2 hence there is no chances of conflict occur.
- R1(x) appears before W1(x) and transaction T1 is committed before T2 i.e. completion of first transaction performed first update on data item x, hence given schedule is recoverable.

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Recoverability –

➤ Recoverable Schedule –

- **Example 2** – Consider the following schedule involving two transactions T1 and T2.

T1	T2
R(A)	
W(A)	
	W(A)
	R(A)
commit	
	commit

- This is a recoverable schedule since T1 commits before T2, that makes the value read by T2 correct.

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Recoverability –

➤ Irrecoverable Schedule –

- When T_j is reading the value updated by T_i and T_j is committed before committing of T_i , the schedule will be irrecoverable.

T1	T1's buffer space	T2	T2's Buffer Space	Database
				A=5000
R(A);	A=5000			A=5000
A=A-100;	A=4000			A=5000
W(A);	A=4000			A=4000
		R(A);	A=4000	A=4000
		A=A+500;	A=4500	A=4000
		W(A);	A=4500	A=4500
		Commit;		
Failure Point				
Commit;				

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Recoverability –

➤ Irrecoverable Schedule –

- The table above shows a schedule with two transactions, T1 reads and writes A and that value is read and written by T2.
- T2 commits. But later on, T1 fails.
- So we have to rollback T1.
- Since T2 has read the value written by T1, it should also be rolled back.
- But we have already committed that. So this schedule is irrecoverable schedule.

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Recoverability –

➤ Recoverable with Cascading Rollback–

- If T_j is reading value updated by T_i and commit of T_j is delayed till commit of T_i , the **schedule** is called **recoverable with cascading rollback**.

T1	T1's buffer space	T2	T2's Buffer Space	Database
				A=5000
R(A);	A=5000			A=5000
A=A-100;	A=4000			A=5000
W(A);	A=4000			A=4000
		R(A);	A=4000	A=4000
		A=A+500;	A=4500	A=4000
		W(A);	A=4500	A=4500
Failure Point				
Commit;				
		Commit;		

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Recoverability –

➤ Recoverable with Cascading Rollback–

- The table above shows a schedule with two transactions, T1 reads and writes A and that value is read and written by T2.
- T1 fails. So we have to rollback T1.
- Since T2 has read the value written by T1, it should also be rolled back.
- As it has not committed, we can rollback T2 as well. So it is recoverable with cascading rollback.

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Recoverability –

➤ Cascadeless Recoverable Rollback–

- If T_j reads value updated by T_i only after T_i is committed, the **schedule** will be cascadeless recoverable.

T1	T1's buffer space	T2	T2's Buffer Space	Database
				A=5000
R(A);	A=5000			A=5000
A=A-100;	A=4000			A=5000
W(A);	A=4000			A=4000
Commit;				
		R(A);	A=4000	A=4000
		A=A+500;	A=4500	A=4000
		W(A);	A=4500	A=4500
		Commit;		

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Recoverability –

➤ Cascadeless Recoverable Rollback–

- The table above shows a schedule with two transactions, T1 reads and writes A and that value is read and written by T2.
- But if T1 fails before commit, no other transaction has read its value, so there is no need to rollback other transaction. So this is a Cascadeless recoverable schedule.

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Testing for Serializability –

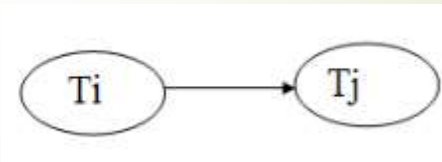
- When **designing concurrency control schemes**, we must **show that schedules generated by the scheme are serializable**.
- To do that, we must **first understand how to determine**, given a particular schedule S , **whether the schedule is serializable or not**.
- We present a simple and efficient method for determining conflict serializability of a schedule.
- Consider a schedule S . We **construct a directed graph**, called a **precedence graph**, from S .
- This **graph consists** of a pair $G=(V, E)$, where V is a set of vertices and E is a set of edges.
- The **set of vertices** consists **of all the transactions participating in the schedule**.

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Testing for Serializability –

- The **set of edges** consists of **all edges** $T_i \rightarrow T_j$ for which one of **three conditions** holds:
 - T_i executes **write(Q)** before T_j executes **read(Q)**.
 - T_i executes **read(Q)** before T_j executes **write(Q)**.
 - T_i executes **write(Q)** before T_j executes **write(Q)**.

➤ Precedence Graph for Schedule S –



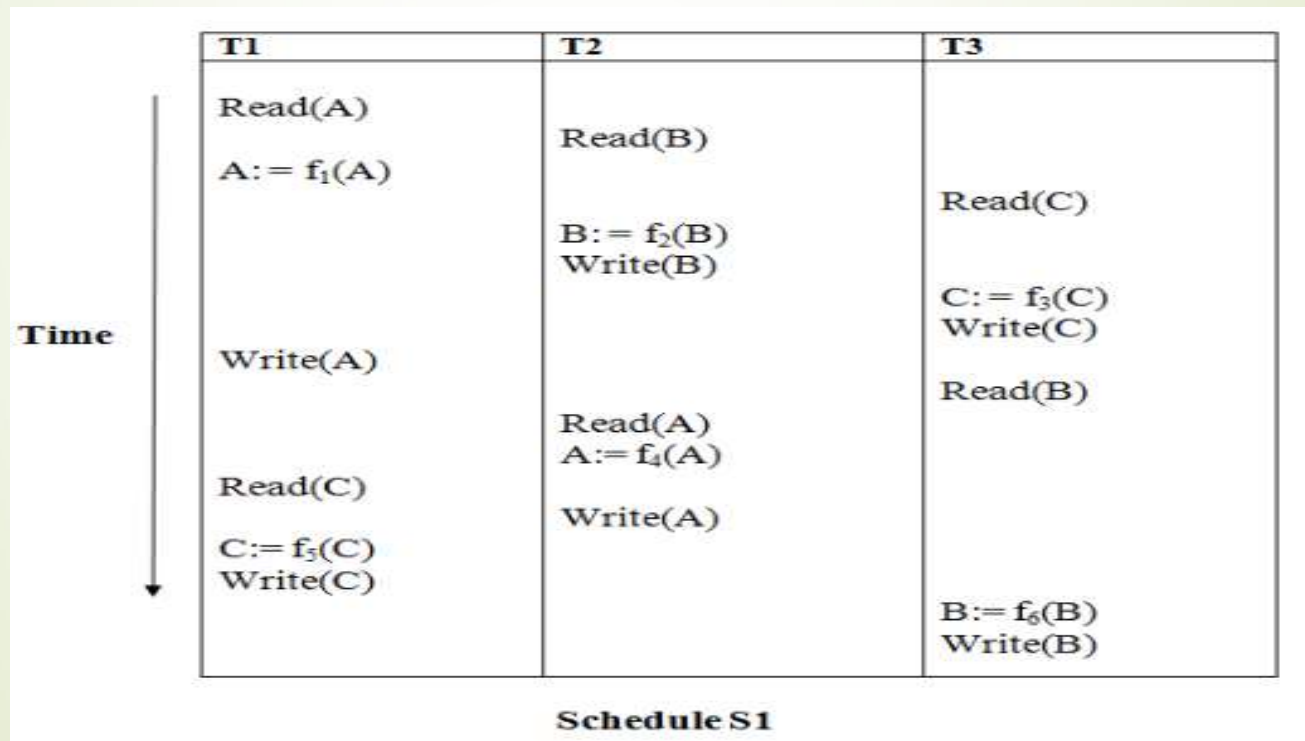
- If a **precedence graph** contains a **single edge** $T_i \rightarrow T_j$, then **all the instructions of T_i** are **executed before** the **first instructions of T_j** is executed.
- If a **precedence graph** for schedule S **contains a cycle**, then S is **non-serializable**. If the **precedence graph** has **no cycle**, then S is known as **serializable**.

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Testing for Serializability –

➤ Precedence Graph for Schedule S –

➤ Example 1 -



Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Testing for Serializability –

➤ Precedence Graph for Schedule S –

➤ Example 1 –

Read(A): In T1, no subsequent writes to A, so no new edges

Read(B): In T2, no subsequent writes to B, so no new edges

Read(C): In T3, no subsequent writes to C, so no new edges

Write(B): B is subsequently read by T3, so add edge T2 → T3

Write(C): C is subsequently read by T1, so add edge T3 → T1

Write(A): A is subsequently read by T2, so add edge T1 → T2

Write(A): In T2, no subsequent reads to A, so no new edges

Write(C): In T1, no subsequent reads to C, so no new edges

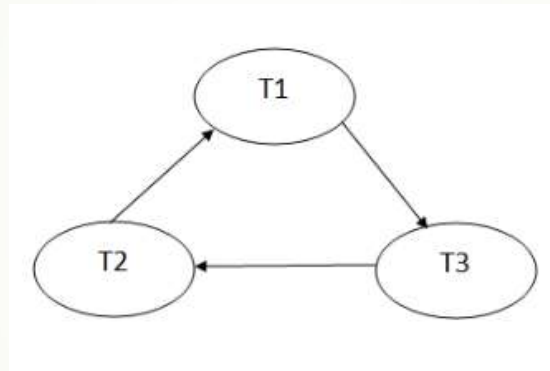
Write(B): In T3, no subsequent reads to B, so no new edges

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Testing for Serializability –

➤ Precedence Graph for Schedule S –

➤ **Example 1** – Precedence graph for schedule S1



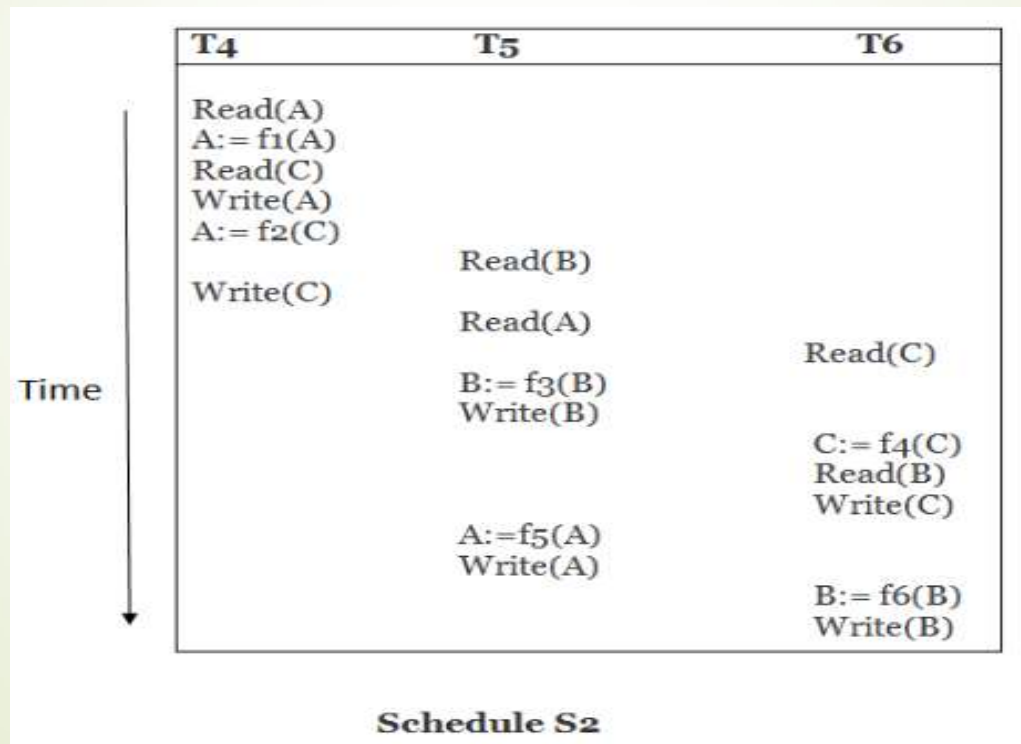
- The precedence graph for schedule S1 contains a cycle that's why Schedule S1 is non-serializable.

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Testing for Serializability –

➤ Precedence Graph for Schedule S –

➤ Example 2 –



Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Testing for Serializability –

➤ Precedence Graph for Schedule S –

➤ Example 2 –

Read(A): In T4, no subsequent writes to A, so no new edges

Read(C): In T4, no subsequent writes to C, so no new edges

Write(A): A is subsequently read by T5, so add edge T4 → T5

Read(B): In T5, no subsequent writes to B, so no new edges

Write(C): C is subsequently read by T6, so add edge T4 → T6

Write(B): A is subsequently read by T6, so add edge T5 → T6

Write(C): In T6, no subsequent reads to C, so no new edges

Write(A): In T5, no subsequent reads to A, so no new edges

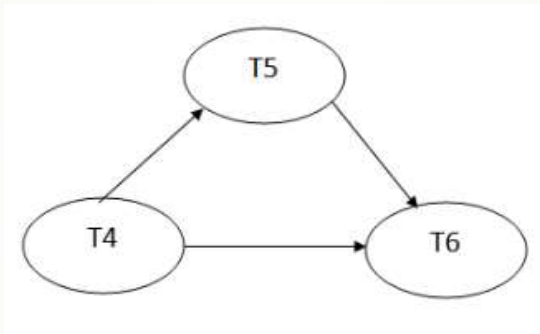
Write(B): In T6, no subsequent reads to B, so no new edges

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Testing for Serializability –

➤ Precedence Graph for Schedule S –

➤ **Example 2** – Precedence graph for schedule S2



- The precedence graph for schedule S2 contains no cycle that's why ScheduleS2 is serializable.

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Concurrency Control –

- One of the **fundamental properties** of a transaction is **isolation**.
- When **several transactions execute concurrently** in the database then the **isolation property** may no longer be preserved.
- To ensure that, the **system** must **control** the **interaction among** the **concurrent transactions**; this control is **achieved through** one of a variety of mechanisms called **concurrency control schemes**.
- Concurrency-control schemes, **based on the serializability property**.
- There are a **variety of concurrency-control schemes**.
- **Concurrency control ensures** the **simultaneous execution or manipulation of data** by several processes or user **without resulting in data inconsistency**.
- Concurrency Control deals with **interleaved execution of more than one transaction**.

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Concurrency Control –

- **Executing a single transaction** at a time **increase** the **waiting time** of the other transactions which may result in delay in the overall execution.
- Hence for **increasing the overall throughput and efficiency** of the system, **several transactions** are **executed**.
- **Concurrency control** provides a **procedure** that is able to **control concurrent execution** of the operations in the database.

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Concurrency Control –

➤ Lock Based Protocol –

- One way to **ensure serializability** is to require that **data items** be **accessed in a mutually exclusive manner**.
- **Mutually exclusive** means while **one transaction** is **accessing a data item**, **no other transaction** can **modify that data item**.
- The **most common method used** to implement this requirement is to **allow a transaction to access a data item only if it is currently holding a lock on that item**.
- A **lock** is a **mechanism to control concurrent access to a data item**.
- Data items can be **locked in two modes** :
 - **Exclusive(X) Mode**
 - **Shared(S) Mode**

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Concurrency Control –

➤ Lock Based Protocol –

➤ Exclusive(X) Mode:

- Data item can be both **read as well as written**.
- X-lock is requested using **lock-X instruction**.

➤ Shared(S) Mode:

- Data item can **only be read**.
- S-lock is requested using **lock-S instruction**.

- **Lock requests** are **made to concurrency control manager**.
- **Transaction** can **proceed only after request is granted**.

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Concurrency Control –

➤ Lock Based Protocol –

➤ Lock Compatibility Matrix –

	S	X
S	true	false
X	false	false

- We require that **every transaction request a lock** in an appropriate mode on data item Q, **depending on the types of operations** that it will perform on Q.
- The **use of two lock modes** allows multiple transactions to **read a data item** but **limits write access to just one transaction** at a time.

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Concurrency Control –

➤ Lock Based Protocol –

➤ Lock Compatibility Matrix –

- Let A and B represent arbitrary lock modes.
- Suppose that a **transaction T_i requests a lock of mode A on item Q on which transaction T_j ($T_i \neq T_j$) currently holds a lock of mode B.**
- If **transaction T_i can be granted a lock on Q immediately**, in spite of the presence of the mode B lock, then we say **mode A is compatible with mode B.**
- An element **$\text{comp}(A, B)$** of the **matrix has the value true** if and only if **mode A is compatible with mode B.**
- **Shared mode is compatible with shared mode, but not with exclusive mode.** At any time, **several shared-mode locks can be held simultaneously** (by different transactions) on a particular data item.

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Concurrency Control –

➤ Lock Based Protocol –

➤ Lock Compatibility Matrix –

- If any **transaction** holds an **exclusive lock** on the item no other **transaction** may hold any lock on the item.
- If a **lock cannot be granted**, the **requesting transaction** is made to **wait till all incompatible locks held by other transactions** have been **released**. The lock is then granted.
- Example of a transaction performing locking:

```
T2: lock-S(A);  
    read (A);  
    unlock(A);  
    lock-S(B);  
    read (B);  
    unlock(B);  
    display(A+B)
```


Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Concurrency Control –

➤ Lock Based Protocol –

➤ Lock Compatibility Matrix –

- Locking as above is not sufficient to guarantee serializability.
- If A and B get updated in-between the read of A and B, the displayed sum would be wrong.
- A locking protocol is a set of rules followed by all transactions while requesting and releasing locks.
- Locking protocols restrict the set of possible schedules.

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Concurrency Control –

➤ Lock Based Protocol –

➤ Pitfalls of Lock-Based Protocols –

➤ Consider the partial schedule

T_3	T_4
lock-X(B) read(B) $B := B - 50$ write(B)	
	lock-S(A) read(A) lock-S(B)
lock-X(A)	

- Neither T_3 nor T_4 can make progress - executing lock-S(B) causes T_4 to wait for T_3 to release its lock on B, while executing lock-X(A) causes T_3 to wait for T_4 to release its lock on A. Such a situation is called a **deadlock**.
- To handle a deadlock one of T_3 or T_4 must be rolled back and its locks released.

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Concurrency Control –

➤ Lock Based Protocol –

➤ Pitfalls of Lock-Based Protocols –

- **Starvation** is also possible if concurrency control manager is badly designed.
- Starvation occurs when a transaction is not able to get the resources it needs to proceed and is continuously delayed or blocked.
- For example, transaction may be waiting for an X-lock on an item, while a sequence of other transactions request are granted an S-lock on the same item.
- The **same transaction** is **repeatedly rolled back due to deadlocks**.
- Concurrency control manager can be designed to prevent starvation.

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Concurrency Control –

➤ Lock Based Protocol –

➤ Granting of Locks –

- We can **avoid starvation** of transactions by granting locks in the following manner:
 - When a **transaction T_i requests a lock** on a data item Q in a particular mode M , the **concurrency-control manager grants the lock** provided that –
 - There is **no other transaction holding a lock on Q in a mode that conflicts with M .**
 - There is **no other transaction that is waiting for a lock on Q , and made its lock request before T_i .**
- Thus, a lock request will never get blocked by a lock request that is made later.

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Concurrency Control –

➤ Lock Based Protocol –

➤ Two-Phase Locking Protocol –

- There are **two types of Locks available** – Shared & Exclusive.
- **Implementing** this **lock system without** any **restrictions** gives us the **Simple Lock-based protocol** but they **do not guarantee Serializability**.
- **To guarantee serializability**, we follow **additional protocols** concerning the positioning of locking and unlocking operations in every transaction.
- We have **Two-Phase Locking(2-PL)** which **ensures serializability**.

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Concurrency Control –

➤ Lock Based Protocol –

➤ Two-Phase Locking Protocol –

- A **transaction** is said to **follow the Two-Phase Locking protocol** if **Locking and Unlocking** can be **done in two phases**.
- **Phase 1: Growing Phase**
 - transaction may **obtain locks** but may **not release locks**
- **Phase 2: Shrinking Phase**
 - transaction may **release locks** but may **not obtain locks**
- If lock conversion is allowed, then upgrading of lock(from $S(a)$ to $X(a)$) is allowed in the Growing Phase, and downgrading of lock (from $X(a)$ to $S(a)$) must be done in the shrinking phase.

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Concurrency Control –

➤ Lock Based Protocol –

➤ Two-Phase Locking Protocol –

➤ Two-phase locking with lock conversions:

➤ Growing Phase / First Phase:

- can acquire a lock-S on item
- can acquire a lock-X on item
- can convert a lock-S to a lock-X (upgrade)

➤ Shrinking Phase / Second Phase:

- can release a lock-S
- can release a lock-X
- can convert a lock-X to a lock-S (downgrade)

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Concurrency Control –

➤ Lock Based Protocol –

➤ Two-Phase Locking Protocol –

- Two-phase locking **does not ensure freedom from deadlocks.**
- **Cascading roll-back** is possible under two phase locking.
- **To avoid** this, follow a **modified protocol** called **strict two-phase locking.**
- Here a **transaction** must **hold all its exclusive locks till it commits/aborts.**
- **Rigorous two-phase locking** is even **stricter**: here **all locks are held till commit/abort.**
- In this protocol, **transactions can be serialized in the order in which they commit.**

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Concurrency Control –

➤ Timestamp-Based Protocols –

- Each transaction is issued a timestamp when it enters the system.
- If an old transaction T_i has time-stamp $TS(T_i)$, a new transaction T_j is assigned time-stamp $TS(T_j)$ such that $TS(T_i) < TS(T_j)$.
- The protocol manages concurrent execution such that the time-stamps determine the serializability order.
- There are two simple methods for implementing this scheme:
 - Use the value of the system clock as the timestamp.
 - Use a logical counter that is incremented after a new timestamp has been assigned.

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Concurrency Control –

➤ Timestamp-Based Protocols –

- In order to assure such behavior, the **protocol maintains for each data Q two timestamp values:**
 - **W-timestamp(Q)** is the **largest time-stamp** of any transaction that **executed write(Q) successfully.**
 - **R-timestamp(Q)** is the **largest time-stamp** of any transaction that **executed read(Q) successfully.**
- The timestamp-based protocol **ensures** that any **conflicting read and write operations** are **executed in timestamp order.**

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Concurrency Control –

➤ Timestamp-Based Protocols –

- Suppose a transaction T_i issues a $\text{read}(Q)$ operation -
 - If $TS(T_i) \leq W_TS(Q)$, then T_i needs to read a value of Q that was **already overwritten**. Hence, the **read operation is rejected**, and **T_i is rolled back**.
 - If $TS(T_i) \geq W_TS(Q)$, then the **read operation is executed**, and **$R_TS(Q)$ is set to the maximum of $R_TS(Q)$ and $TS(T_i)$** .
- **Where,**
 - $TS(T_i)$ denotes the timestamp of the transaction T_i .
 - $R_TS(Q)$ denotes the Read time-stamp of data-item Q .
 - $W_TS(Q)$ denotes the Write time-stamp of data-item Q .

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Concurrency Control –

➤ Timestamp-Based Protocols –

- Suppose a transaction **Ti** issues a **write(Q)** operation
 - If **$TS(Ti) < R_TS(Q)$** , then the value of Q that Ti is producing was needed previously, and system assumed that value would never be produced. Hence, the **write operation is rejected**, and **Ti is rolled back**.
 - If **$TS(Ti) < W_TS(Q)$** , then Ti is attempting to write an obsolete value of Q. Hence, this **write operation is rejected**, and **Ti is rolled back**.
 - **Otherwise**, the **write operation is executed**, and **$W_TS(Q)$ is set to $TS(Ti)$** .

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Concurrency Control –

➤ Validation Based Protocol –

- **Validation Based Protocol** is also called **Optimistic Concurrency Control Technique**.
- This protocol is used in DBMS for **avoiding concurrency in transactions**.
- It is called **optimistic because of the assumption** it makes, i.e. **very less interference occurs**, therefore, there is **no need for checking while the transaction is executed**.
- In this technique, **no checking is done while the transaction is been executed**.
- **Until the transaction end is reached, updates in the transaction are not applied directly to the database**.
- **All updates are applied to local copies of data items kept for the transaction**.

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Concurrency Control –

➤ Validation Based Protocol –

- **At the end of transaction execution, a validation phase checks** whether any of transaction updates violate serializability.
- If there is **no violation of serializability** the **transaction is committed** and the **database is updated**; or **else**, the **transaction is updated and then restarted**.
- **Each transaction T_i executes in three different phases** in its lifetime, depending on whether it is a read-only or an update transaction.
 - **Read Phase**
 - **Validation Phase**
 - **Write Phase**

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Concurrency Control –

➤ Validation Based Protocol –

➤ Read Phase –

- During this phase, the **system executes transaction T_i** .
- It **reads the values** of the various data items and **stores them in variables local to T_i** .
- It **performs all write operations on temporary local variables, without updates to the actual database.**

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Concurrency Control –

➤ Validation Based Protocol –

➤ Validation Phase –

- Transaction T_i performs a **validation test to determine** whether it can **copy to the database** the **temporary local variables** that **hold the results of write operations without causing a violation of serializability**.

➤ Write Phase –

- If transaction T_i **succeeds in validation** (step 2), then the **system applies the actual updates to the database**.
- **Otherwise, the system rolls back T_i .**

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Concurrency Control –

➤ Validation Based Protocol –

- Each **transaction T_i** has **3 timestamps** –
 - **Start(T_i)** : It is the time when T_i started its execution.
 - **Validation(T_i)**: It is the time when T_i just finished its read phase and begin its validation phase.
 - **Finish(T_i)** : The time when T_i end it's all writing operations in the database under write-phase.
- **Serializability order** is **determined by timestamp** given at validation time, to **increase concurrency**.
- This protocol is useful and gives **greater degree of concurrency** if probability of **conflicts is low**.

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Data Recovery –

- **A computer system**, like any other device, is **subject to failure from a variety of causes**:
- For e.g. **disk crash, power outage, software error, a fire in the machine room**.
- **In any failure, information may be lost**.
- Therefore, the **database system** must **take actions in advance** to **ensure that the atomicity and durability properties of transactions are preserved**.
- An **integral part of a database system** is a **recovery scheme** that can **restore the database to the consistent state** that **existed before the failure**.
- The **recovery scheme** must **also provide high availability**.
- It **must minimize** the **time for which the database is not usable after a crash**.

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Data Recovery –

➤ Failure Classification –

- There are **various types of failure** that may **occur in a system**, **each** of which **needs to be dealt with in a different manner**.
- The **simplest type of failure** is one **that does not result in the loss of information** in the system.
- The **failures that are more difficult to deal with** are **those that result in loss of information**.
- **1. Transaction failure:**
 - There are **two types of errors** that may **cause a transaction to fail**:
 - **Logical error** - The **transaction can no longer continue** with its normal execution because of **some internal condition**, such as **bad input, data not found, overflow, or resource limit exceeded**.

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Data Recovery –

➤ Failure Classification –

➤ 1. Transaction failure:

- **System error** - The **system has entered** an **undesirable state** (for example, deadlock), as a **result** of which a **transaction cannot continue** with its **normal execution**. The **transaction can be re-executed** at a later time.

➤ 2. System Crash:

- There is a **hardware malfunction**, or a **bug in the database software or the operating system**, that **causes the loss of the content of volatile storage**, and **brings transaction processing to a halt**.
- The **content of non-volatile storage remains intact**, and **is not corrupted**.
- The **assumption that hardware errors and bugs in the software bring the system to a halt**, but **do not corrupt the nonvolatile storage contents**, is known as the **fail-stop assumption**.

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Data Recovery –

➤ Failure Classification –

➤ 2. System Crash:

- **Well-designed systems have** numerous **internal checks**, at the **hardware and the software level**, that **bring the system to a halt** when there is an **error**.
- Hence, the **fail-stop assumption is a reasonable one**.

➤ 3. Disk failure:

- A **disk block loses its content** as a **result of** either a **head crash** or **failure during a data-transfer operation**.
- **Copies of the data on other disks**, or archival backups on tertiary media, such as DVD or tapes, are **used to recover from the failure**.

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Data Recovery –

➤ Failure Classification –

- To **determine** how the system should recover from failures, we need to **identify the failure modes** of those devices used for storing data.
- Next, we must **consider** how these failure modes affect the contents of the **database**.
- We can **then propose algorithms** to ensure database consistency and **transaction atomicity** despite failures.
- These **algorithms**, known as **recovery algorithms**, have **two parts**:
 - **Actions taken during normal transaction processing** to **ensure** that enough information exists to allow recovery from failures.
 - **Actions taken after a failure** to recover the database contents to a state that **ensures database consistency, transaction atomicity, and durability**.

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Data Recovery –

➤ Recovery and Atomicity –

- **Modifying the database without ensuring that the transaction will commit may leave the database in an inconsistent state.**
- Consider **transaction T_i** that **transfers \$50 from account A to account B**; goal is **either to perform all database modifications** made by T_i or **none at all**.
- Several **output operations** may be **required for T_i** (to output A and B). A **failure** may **occur after one of these modifications** have been **made but before all of them are made**.
- To **ensure atomicity** despite failures, we **first output information describing the modifications to stable storage without modifying the database itself**.
- **Two approaches – log-based recovery and shadow paging.**
- We **assume** (initially) that **transactions run serially**, that is, **one after the other**.

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Data Recovery –

➤ Log-Based Recovery –

- A **log** is kept on stable storage.
- The **log** is a **sequence of log records**, and maintains a record of update activities on the database.
- When **transaction T_i starts**, it **registers itself** by writing a **< T_i start> log record**.
- **Before T_i executes write(X)**, a **log record < T_i , X_j , V_1 , V_2 > is written**, where **V_1 is the value of X before the write**, and **V_2 is the value to be written to X** .
- Log record notes that T_i has performed a write on data item X_j . The X_j had value V_1 before the write, and will have value V_2 after the write.
- When **T_i finishes its last statement**, the **log record < T_i commit> is written**.
- We **assume** for now that **log records are written directly to stable storage** (that is, they are not buffered).

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Data Recovery –

➤ Log-Based Recovery –

➤ Two approaches using logs –

- Deferred database modification
- Immediate database modification

➤ Deferred database modification –

- This scheme **records all modifications to the log**, but **defers all the writes after partial commit**.
- Assume that **transactions execute serially**, Transaction starts by writing **<Ti start>** record to log.
- A **write(X)** operation results in a log record **<Ti, X, V>** being written, where **V** is the new value for X. The **old value is not needed for this scheme**.

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Data Recovery –

➤ Log-Based Recovery –

➤ Deferred database modification –

- The **write is not performed on X** at this time, but is **deferred**.
- When **Ti partially commits**, **<Ti commit>** is written to the log.
- Finally, the **log records are read and used to execute** the **previously deferred writes**.
- **During recovery** after a crash, a **transaction needs to be redone if and only if** both **<Ti start>** and **<Ti commit>** are there in the log.
- **Redoing a transaction Ti (redo Ti)** **sets the value of all data items updated by the transaction to the new values**.

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Data Recovery –

➤ Log-Based Recovery –

➤ Deferred database modification –

➤ Crashes can occur while –

➤ Transaction is executing the original updates, or

➤ While **recovery action is being taken**

➤ **Example** - transactions T₀ and T₁ (T₀ executes before T₁):

T₀: read (A)

A:- A - 50

Write (A)

read (B)

B:- B + 50

write (B)

T₁ : read (C)

C:-C- 100

write (C)

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Data Recovery –

➤ Log-Based Recovery –

➤ Deferred database modification –

➤ Below we show the log as it appears at three instances of time.

$\langle T_0 \text{ start} \rangle$
 $\langle T_0, A, 950 \rangle$
 $\langle T_0, B, 2050 \rangle$

(a)

$\langle T_0 \text{ start} \rangle$
 $\langle T_0, A, 950 \rangle$
 $\langle T_0, B, 2050 \rangle$
 $\langle T_0 \text{ commit} \rangle$
 $\langle T_1 \text{ start} \rangle$
 $\langle T_1, C, 600 \rangle$

(b)

$\langle T_0 \text{ start} \rangle$
 $\langle T_0, A, 950 \rangle$
 $\langle T_0, B, 2050 \rangle$
 $\langle T_0 \text{ commit} \rangle$
 $\langle T_1 \text{ start} \rangle$
 $\langle T_1, C, 600 \rangle$
 $\langle T_1 \text{ commit} \rangle$

(c)

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Data Recovery –

➤ Log-Based Recovery –

➤ Deferred database modification –

➤ If **log on stable storage at time of crash** is as in case:

➤ **a) No redo** actions need to be taken

➤ **b) redo(T0)** must be performed since $\langle T0 \text{ commit} \rangle$ is present

➤ **c) redo(T0)** must be performed **followed by redo(T1)** since $\langle T0 \text{ commit} \rangle$ and $\langle T1 \text{ commit} \rangle$ are present

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Data Recovery –

➤ Log-Based Recovery –

➤ Immediate database modification –

- This scheme **allows database updates of an uncommitted transaction to be made as the writes are issued.**
- Since **undoing may be needed**, update logs must have both **old value and new value.**
- **Update log record** must be **written before database item is written.**
- **Output of updated blocks** can **take place at any time before or after transaction commit.**
- **Order in which blocks are output** can be **different from the order in which they are written.**

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Data Recovery –

➤ Log-Based Recovery –

➤ Immediate database modification –

Log	Write	Output
$\langle T_0 \text{ start} \rangle$		
$\langle T_0, A, 1000, 950 \rangle$		
$T_0, B, 2000, 2050$	$A = 950$ $B = 2050$	
$\langle T_0 \text{ commit} \rangle$		
$\langle T_1 \text{ start} \rangle \quad x_1$		
$\langle T_1, C, 700, 600 \rangle$	$C = 600$	
		B_B, B_C
$\langle T_1 \text{ commit} \rangle$		B_A
Note: B_X denotes block containing X.		

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Data Recovery –

➤ Log-Based Recovery –

➤ Immediate database modification –

➤ Recovery procedure has **two operations** instead of one:

- **undo(Ti)** restores the **value of all data items updated by Ti** to their **old values**, going **backwards** from the last log record for Ti
- **redo(Ti)** sets the **value of all data items** updated by Ti to the **new values**, going **forward** from the first log record for Ti

➤ When **recovering after failure**:

- **Transaction Ti** needs to be **undone** if the **log contains the record <Ti start>**, but **does not contain the record <Ti commit>**.
- **Transaction Ti** needs to be **redone** if the **log contains both the record <Ti start> and the record <Ti commit>**.

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Data Recovery –

➤ Log-Based Recovery –

➤ Immediate database modification –

- Below we show the log as it appears at three instances of time.

<code><T₀ start></code>	<code><T₀ start></code>	<code><T₀ start></code>
<code><T₀, A, 1000, 950></code>	<code><T₀, A, 1000, 950></code>	<code><T₀, A, 1000, 950></code>
<code><T₀, B, 2000, 2050></code>	<code><T₀, B, 2000, 2050></code>	<code><T₀, B, 2000, 2050></code>
	<code><T₀ commit></code>	<code><T₀ commit></code>
	<code><T₁ start></code>	<code><T₁ start></code>
	<code><T₁, C, 700, 600></code>	<code><T₁, C, 700, 600></code>
		<code><T₁ commit></code>
(a)	(b)	(c)

Recovery actions in each case above are:

(a) undo (T_0): B is restored to 2000 and A to 1000.

(b) undo (T_1) and redo (T_0): C is restored to 700, and then A and B are set to 950 and 2050 respectively.

(c) redo (T_0) and redo (T_1): A and B are set to 950 and 2050 respectively. Then C is set to 600

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Data Recovery –

➤ Checkpoints –

➤ Problems in recovery procedure –

- **searching** the **entire log** is **time-consuming**

- We might **unnecessarily redo transactions** which have **already output their updates** to the database.

➤ Streamline recovery procedure by periodically performing checkpointing.

- **Output all log records** currently residing in main memory onto stable storage.

- **Output all modified buffer blocks** to the disk.

- **Write a log record < checkpoint>** onto stable storage.

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Data Recovery –

➤ Checkpoints –

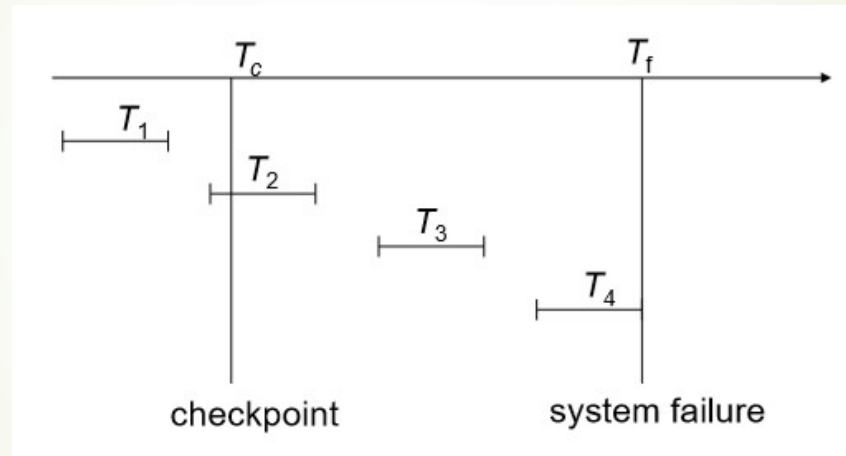
- **During recovery** we need to consider only the **most recent transaction T_i that started before the checkpoint**, and **transactions that started after T_i** .
 - **Scan backwards** from **end of log** to find the most recent **<checkpoint> record**
 - **Continue scanning backwards** till a **record < T_i start>** is found.
 - Need **only consider** the **part of log following above start record**. **Earlier part of log** can be **ignored** during recovery, and can be **erased** whenever desired.
 - **For all transactions** (starting from T_i or later) **with no < T_i commit>**, **execute undo(T_i)**. (Done only in case of immediate modification.)
 - **Scanning forward** in the log, for **all transactions starting from T_i or later with a < T_i commit>**, **execute redo(T_i)**.

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Data Recovery –

➤ Checkpoints –

➤ Example of Checkpoints –



- T_1 can be ignored (updates already output to disk due to checkpoint)
- T_2 and T_3 redone.
- T_4 undone

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Data Recovery –

➤ Shadow Paging –

- **Shadow paging** is an **alternative to log-based recovery**.
- This scheme is **useful if transactions execute serially**.
- **Idea: maintain two page tables during the lifetime of a transaction – the current page table, and the shadow page table.**
- **Store the shadow page table in nonvolatile storage**, such that **state of the database prior to transaction execution** may be **recovered**.
- **Shadow page table** is **never modified during execution**.
- To start with, **both the page tables are identical**.
- **Only current page table** is used for data item accesses during execution of the transaction.

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Data Recovery –

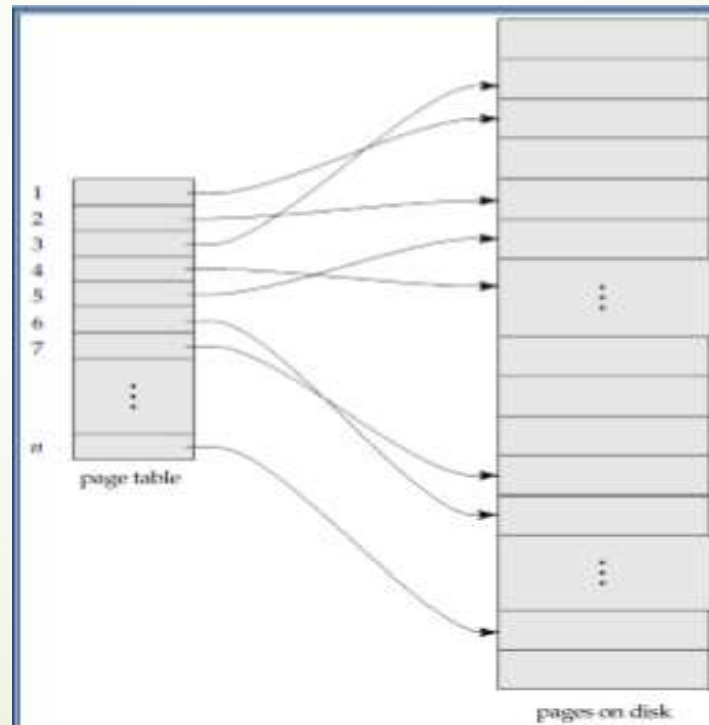
➤ Shadow Paging –

- Whenever **any page** is **about to be written** for the first time-
 - A **copy of this page** is **made onto an unused page**.
 - The **current page table** is then **made to point to the copy**.
 - The **update** is **performed on the copy**.

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Data Recovery –

- Shadow Paging –
 - Sample Page Table

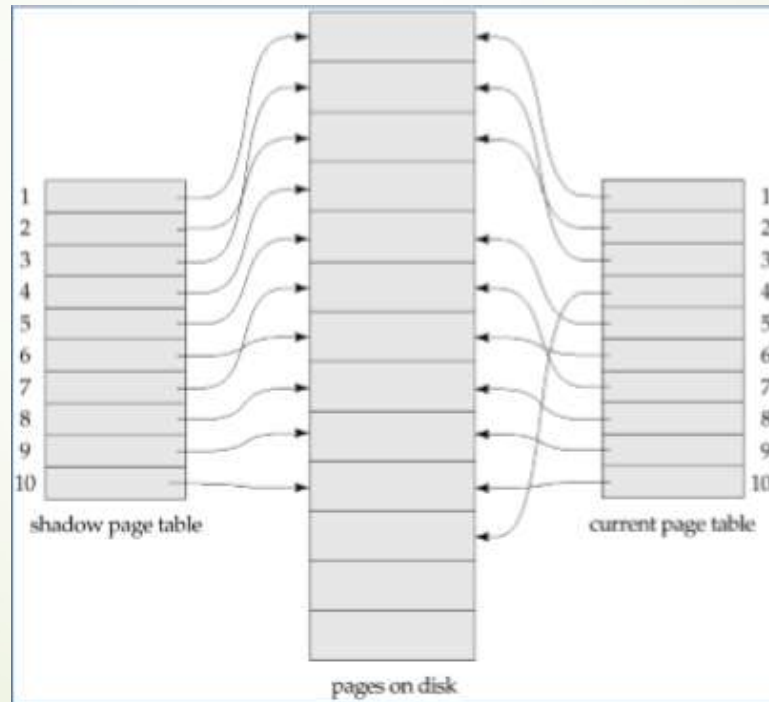


Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Data Recovery –

➤ Shadow Paging –

- **Example** - Shadow and current page tables after write to page 4



Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Data Recovery –

➤ Shadow Paging –

➤ To commit a transaction :

- Flush all modified pages in main memory to disk
- Output current page table to disk
- **Make** the **current page table** the **new shadow page table**, as follows:
 - keep a pointer to the shadow page table at a fixed (known) location on disk.
 - to make the current page table the new shadow page table, simply update the pointer to point to current page table on disk
- Once pointer to shadow page table has been written, transaction is committed.

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Data Recovery –

➤ Shadow Paging –

➤ To commit a transaction :

- **No recovery is needed after a crash** — new transactions can start right away, using the shadow page table.
- **Pages not pointed to from current/shadow page table should be freed** (garbage collected).

➤ **Advantages** of shadow-paging **over log-based schemes** –

- **no overhead of writing log records**
- **recovery is trivial**

Concurrency Control & Crash Recovery

Data Recovery –

➤ Shadow Paging –

➤ Disadvantages –

- **Copying the entire page table is very expensive**
- **Commit overhead is high** even with above extension
- **Data gets fragmented** (related pages get separated on disk)
- **After every transaction completion, the database pages containing old versions of modified data need to be garbage collected**
- **Hard to extend algorithm to allow transactions to run concurrently**